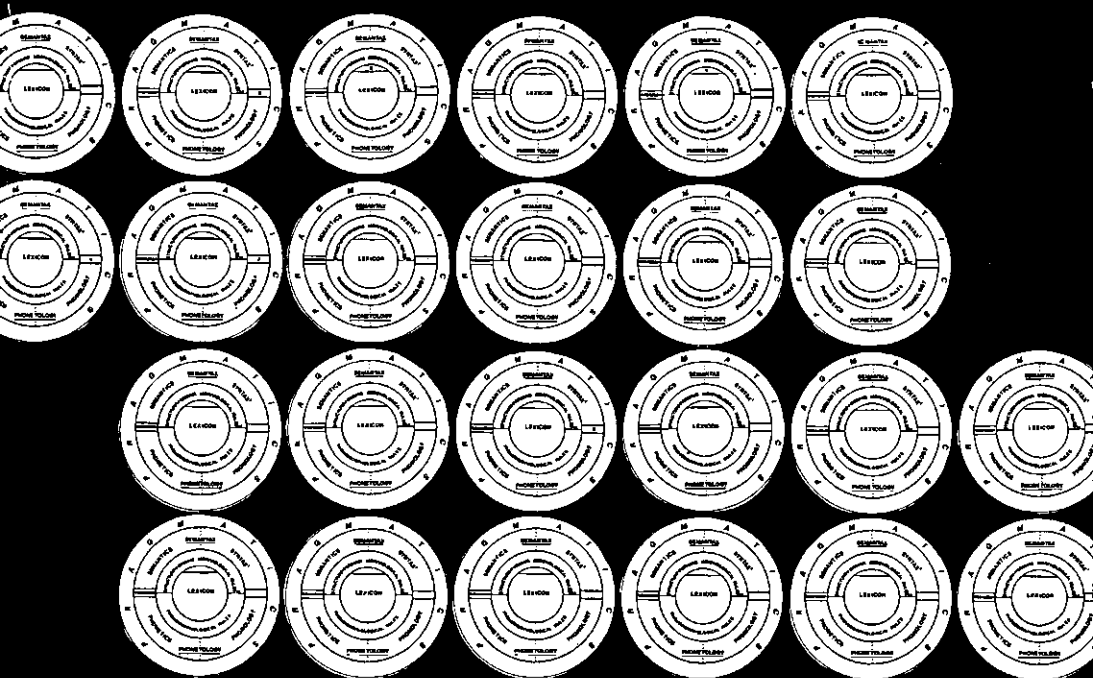


Linguistic Variation across Time and Space

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Edited by Edmondson, Feagin, and Mühlhäusler

Development and Diversity

Language Variation across Time and Space

A Festschrift for Charles-James N. Bailey

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Edited by
Jerold A. Edmondson, Crawford Feagin,
and
Peter Mühlhäusler

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Charles-James N. Bailey

Contents

Acknowledgments	xi
Charles-James N. Bailey: A Personal View	xiii
C.-J. Bailey's Contribution to Linguistics	xxi
<i>Peter Mühlhäusler</i>	
Bibliography of Charles-James N. Bailey	xli

Theoretical Orientation

The Dialect Myth	3
<i>Roy Harris</i>	
Variation in Language and Linguistic Descriptions	21
<i>Dan Maxwell</i>	

Phonetology/Historical

Phonetic Constraints on Sociolinguistic Variation	35
<i>Malcah Yaeger-Dror</i>	
Phonosymbolism in Diachrony: The Case of /r/ > /R/ in Hispano-Romance	71
<i>Yakov Malkiel</i>	
A Glottalic Interpretation of the Germanic EXPRESSIVE GEMINATION	85
<i>Paul J. Hopper</i>	
German Vowel Length and Syllable Contact	95
<i>Thomas A. Perry</i>	

A Few Remarks about the Great Vowel Shift	115
<i>Karl Maroldt</i>	
The Dynamics of a Sound Change in Southern States English: From R-less to R-ful in Three Generations	129
<i>Crawford Feagin</i>	
Language Contact in Ireland: The Irish Phonological Substratum in Irish English	147
<i>Dónall Ó Baoill</i>	
Variability and Anglicization in the Distinction Between <i>p/f</i> in Young Children's Tok Pisin	173
<i>Suzanne Romaine</i>	
Kam Tone Splits and the Variation of Breathiness	187
<i>Jerold A. Edmondson</i>	
Morphosyntax/Historical	
Polylectal Grammars, Randomly Distributed Lects, and Introspective Judgments: A Replication of Legum's <i>while</i> -clause Studies	205
<i>Guy Carden</i>	
<i>in, into, and enter</i>	227
<i>James D. McCawley</i>	
Information Flow and Dative Shift in English Discourse	239
<i>Sandra A. Thompson</i>	
Empty NPs in English and Government in Unexpected Places	255
<i>Arnold M. Zwicky</i>	
Re-marking the English Reciprocal: Commutation versus Mutuality	265
<i>Dwight Bolinger</i>	
Syntactic Strategies for Questions	273
<i>Alice Davison</i>	
Ute Reflexives, Complementation, and Clause Integration	287
<i>Talmy Givón</i>	
A Survey of the Suffix <i>/-s/</i> Analyses in Black English	297
<i>John Baugh</i>	
The Development of <i>#s</i> Plural in Sierra Leone Krio	309
<i>Frederick C. Jones</i>	

Divergence and Similarity in English—Australian English in Contrast with Indian English	323
<i>Gerhard Leitner</i>	
Towards an Implicational Analysis of Pronoun Development	351
<i>Peter Mühlhäusler</i>	
Aspects of Bavarian Syntax or 'Every Language Has At Least Two Parents'	371
<i>Eva and Willi Mayerthaler</i>	
Laterality Effects in Agrammatism	431
<i>Fred C. C. Peng</i>	
Lexicon/Historical	
Variation in Indo-European 'bottom'	447
<i>Eric Hamp</i>	
Divine Names, Myths, and Etymologies in the Germanic World . .	451
<i>Edgar C. Polomé</i>	
Lexical Variation and Genetic Affiliation: The Case of Haruai . . .	461
<i>Bernard Comrie</i>	
Language acquisition/Language learning/Language contact	
Child Language and the Developmental Framework	469
<i>Barbara Horvath</i>	
Phonological Awareness, Misidentification, and Multiple Identities .	483
<i>Beatrice de Gelder</i>	
Variation and Markedness in the Phonology of a Child Acquiring Spanish	507
<i>James L. Fidelholtz and Rosa Graciela Montes</i>	
Markedness Reversals in the Acquisition of Morphology	529
<i>Hannah Pishwa</i>	
Connatural and Abnatural Change in an Unnatural System: The Case of Case Marking in German	547
<i>Carol W. Pfaff</i>	
Multilingualism, Diglossia, and Research Methods: Focus on the Alps and Ireland	587
<i>P. Sture Ureland</i>	

Varia

The Interpretation of Variation in Pitcairn-Norfolk 621
 Donald C. Laycock †

Functions of Repetition: Variation in Narrative and Conversation
 Discourse 629
 Susan C. Shepherd

From Natural Signal to Human Communication: A Typology of Sign
 Processes 639
 Roland Posner

Some Problems of Teaching English in Japan 647
 Gerhard Nickel

C.-J.-isms and C.-J.-asms

C.-J. Glossary 663

TUB Handout 667

Letter to the editor 668

Indexes

Author Index 669

Language Index 677

Subject Index 681

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Jerold A. Edmondson
Crawford Feagin
Peter Mühlhäusler

Charles-James Nice Bailey

A Personal View

Despite outward appearances, Charles-James N. Bailey is, in fact, a very private individual. For instance, anybody who has spent even five minutes with him knows of his strong affection for—and loyalty to—the American South and the South Pacific.¹ On the other hand, there are a great many things—very important to him—that only his closest friends know. The character of his life, like the character of his work, shows this paradoxical mixture of surface simplicity and deep complexity.

While C.-J. was born² and reared in a border state—Kentucky—in the least ‘typically Southern’ part of the state, the mountains of Eastern Kentucky, his roots and relatives are also found in Virginia, Tennessee, Mississippi, Alabama, and South Carolina. In fact, Middlesboro, his home town, is in one of the ‘oldest’ parts of Kentucky, right at the mouth of the Cumberland Gap, where the settlement of Kentucky began. From nearby mountaintops you can see four states—Kentucky, Virginia, Tennessee, and West Virginia. His father’s family were Virginians; his mother was from nearby Rogersville, Tennessee, one of the oldest towns in that state. His cousins include the writers Alexander Percy (*Lanterns on the Levee*) and Walker Percy (*The Moviegoer*, *Love in the Ruins*); another cousin was president of Washington and Lee University. Like most Southerners, C.-J.

¹C.-J., with his passion for accuracy in the least detail, would argue that Hawaii, being above the Equator, is not part of the South Pacific.

²His birth date is May 2, 1926.

is proud of his Southern heritage and of his family background. In light of his devotion to the region, it will come as no surprise that he is a genuine Kentucky Colonel, on the staff of the governor of Kentucky, surely the only one in Berlin!

Middlesboro was an ideal place to become interested in language variation. It was a planned industrial town built about a hundred years ago with money from an English industrialist. A mining town, it had a diverse populace ranging from miners straight from the hills with their mountain twangs and hard *r*'s to the mine owners and professional people, like C.-J.'s family, with their more 'Southern' *r*-less speech. Moreover, there were blacks in the town, some of whom worked as domestics, so that it was natural for middle- and upper-class children to grow up hearing Black English on a daily basis. C.-J. went to the public schools in Middlesboro, becoming thoroughly exposed to the many varieties of English in the white community. While in high school he won the state championship in mathematics, competing with students from Louisville and from private schools across Kentucky.³

On equal footing with his devotion to the American South is his love for the South Pacific, especially his 'jungalow' on the 'Big Island' of Hawaii, near Hilo. (Just ask him where he's from!!) Not incidentally, the Big Island is the southernmost point of the U.S. C.-J. first encountered Hawaii when he joined the Navy right out of high school and was stationed in Honolulu in the waning years of World War II in the Air Transport Service Command. Later, he returned to Micronesia for a year where he did fieldwork in the Marshall Islands. (His M.A. thesis at the University of Chicago was on Marshallese.) His next long residence in Hawaii was as a teacher at the Kamehameha School in Honolulu. When he finished graduate school for the last time (in linguistics at the University of Chicago), he was delighted to land a job at the University of Hawaii. During his three years there he started putting down some roots, buying a condominium in Honolulu, and dreaming of his own place there. He was then lured to Georgetown University, where a new sociolinguistics program was starting up. While helping to launch the program at Georgetown, he indulged his taste for the symphony, the opera, and other pleasant aspects of Washington cultural life. After that, he returned to Hawaii for a year of writing in his tree house on three acres of land he had bought. This tree house was the predecessor of the current jungalow. In the fall of 1974 C.-J. reluctantly abandoned his paradise and accepted the position he has held for the

³So much for those of us who think he opposes quantitative linguistics because he can't count!

remainder of his professional career, Professor of English and General Linguistics at the Technical University of Berlin (TUB).

During the long dreary winters in Berlin, he amused himself with dreams of building his own place in Hawaii. While others had photo albums of their children, C.-J. had one of his jungalow, Moani Lehua Gardens. (The name means 'the fragrant breeze of the lehua tree'—many lehua trees grow on his property.) Yearly Christmas cards showed the steady progress in the growth of the house and of the vegetation in his atrium. (In keeping with his classical background, his house resembles a Roman one.) Retirement for C.-J. means a permanent return to this island paradise. He'll never be cold again!

For someone who is happiest in southern climes, he has spent a surprising amount of time in the northern latitudes of both hemispheres. After his service in the Navy he went to the heart of 'Yankeeland'—Harvard. Ever a fast starter, he won the Detur Book Prize for outstanding freshmen and also the Latin Prize. Majoring in classics and comparative philology, he was Phi Beta Kappa and salutatorian of his class,⁴ an auspicious beginning to a distinguished career as a scholar. But Harvard was not far enough north. During the summers he worked as a counselor at a camp in Maine, even more Yankee than Harvard!

After his stint of teaching Latin and French at Kamehameha,⁵ as well as French at the Lake Forest School outside of Chicago, which followed another career (see below), C.-J. returned to the study of language, quickly earning his M.A. (1967) and Ph.D. (1969) degrees in linguistics at Chicago. (His dissertation was on the inflectional morphology of Indo-European nouns.) During those years he started working and writing on what would be the main topics he would continue exploring over the years—the interconnections among historical linguistics, dialectology (and later sociolinguistics and creolistics), and theoretical linguistics; phonetics and phonology; Southern States English, Indo-European, and Marshallese; and the varying concepts of STANDARD in languages. (We tremble at the thought of his reactions to our using the very word *standard*—even with a little *s*.)

Always the innovator, C.-J. was instrumental in setting up the publication format of the Chicago Linguistic Society (CLS) proceedings. The CLS volumes were an entirely new concept, widely imitated since, with students as editors, and rapid and inexpensive publication. Equally successful was

⁴He gave the address in Latin; his brother still remembers it as being exciting, even for nonlinguists.

⁵He has also taught Classical and New Testament Greek on the graduate level.

his conception of NWAVE (New Ways of Analyzing Variation in English and other languages) meetings, begun as an appendage to a SECOL/SAADS⁶ meeting he chaired at Georgetown. What he had in mind was that NWAVE, like CLS, would call for abstracts fairly close to the meeting time so that the newest work could be discussed. It was also to be a low-budget meeting—for participants as well as the host university—so that students could attend and participate. Originally, the publication of papers was to have been like those of CLS—unedited, camera-ready copy prepared by the authors, which would be published before the following year's meeting. (This was the case when he was involved.) The idea of NWAVE was adopted in Britain and turned into a biennial meeting, the Sociolinguistics Seminar. In addition to starting a series of meetings, working papers have also been a specialty of C.-J.'s; those at Hawaii and at RUB were his offspring. Undoubtedly, he picked up the idea for the establishment of these working papers from his year as a visiting scholar at MTR where the genre was well-known in the early 1960s.

One of the joys of scholarship for C.-J. has been the opportunity to travel—probably better than if he had stayed in the Navy! Soon after Harvard, he spent time in Italy, Switzerland, and England as a student at the Universities of Florence, Basel, and Cambridge. Among his more recent exotic trips were ones to Korea, India, Brazil, China, Tibet, and Vanuatu giving talks along the way in Seoul, New Delhi, and Beijing. As we were going to press with this volume, he was looking forward to a trip to Canada, New Zealand, and Australia, with a summer as Visiting Professor and Program Assessor in Brunei. Previous positions as visiting professor or scholar in Johannesburg, The Hague (Wassenaar), and Jerusalem gave him longer stays in those interesting places.

Music has been another important theme in his life. He tells of getting to play the organ at Wanamakers in Philadelphia when he was visiting there once while a college student. Among the attractions of both Washington and Berlin were the resident symphonies and operas. Letters from Hawaii mention “maxing out on Mozart” on the lanai under a full moon with his CD full blast. A little-known opera—C.-J. *auf* Naxos—was composed by a University of Chicago roommate, James Cottingham. One screechy aria is entitled, *Dork me not in mournful numbers!*

More important than all the rest—but certainly the most personal—has been his serious interest in religion. C.-J. grew up Southern Presbyterian (Presbyterian Church, U.S.). A long intellectual and spiritual journey

⁶Southeast Conference on Linguistics/South Atlantic Regional Meeting of the American Dialect Society.

brought him to Orthodoxy. Many of his colleagues may not be aware that he has an M.Div. degree in theology from Harvard (which included two years at St. Catherine's College, Cambridge), and a D.Min. degree from Vanderbilt. (His dissertation was on liturgy.)⁷ Before going to Cambridge he studied with Karl Barth in Basel. Perhaps Barth is connected with C.-J.'s admiration for Mozart; Barth was a Mozart fan, too.

While the attraction of Orthodoxy was undoubtedly intellectual and spiritual—"It's the TRUE Church!!"—his two loves, Greek and music, are certainly united in the Eastern Church, the one in the Greek Orthodox Church, the other in the Russian, Ukrainian, and other Slavic Orthodox churches with their stunning choirs. (He once commented admiringly on a Ukrainian choir in Chicago with their "lungs of leather.")

In this context, then, it is not surprising to learn that his fieldwork in Micronesia, when he was in his twenties, included working on a translation of the Bible into Marshallese.

It cannot be said that C.-J. is wishy-washy. He is not prone to alter his position easily. This strength of mind, of course, is an advantage if he decides he likes you! (It has been said that C.-J. believes in gradience for linguistics but binariness for people.) While C.-J. may not be stingy with his advice, our experience has been that he almost always turns out to be right, whether about linguistics, people, or practical aspects of life. He has taught us all that pushing a case to its extreme ("You don't believe THAT dreck, do you?") has its advantages. You are then forced to reexamine your own position carefully, especially if you're defending an old, accepted idea.

His fieldwork strategies drive his more methodical friends to frenzy. Peter Mühlhäusler, for example, relates that "C.-J. has always assured me that linguistics and personal matters should be kept strictly separate. However, there is at least one area where the two are not properly kept apart and that is C.-J.'s habit not only to talk to people but also to subject them to a phonetological analysis at the same time. I have had C.-J. for dinner parties at our place in Berlin and found him taking notes and making phonetic transcriptions whilst eating his dinner and conversing with the people around him. C.-J. not only describes what he finds on such occasions but also predicts what variants his subject will come up with next. Sometimes this can be quite a conversation stopper."

All of his friends (and most of his enemies) have C.-J. stories, often about his more provocative qualities. He tends to let the chips fall where

⁷Charles-James N. Bailey. 1963. Two contemporary theologies of worship: Masure and Barth: a study in comparative dogmatics. Vanderbilt University dissertation.

they may; a diplomat he is not! Nonetheless, he can be utterly delightful, often making corny jokes and puns in English and German about nearly everything and everybody (e.g., "How's the ole crankcase?"). Life around C.-J. is never dull!

C.-J.'s influence on language has exceeded the limits of linguistics proper; he has an evangelistic zeal for language. In addition to being the only person alive who observes and enforces all the sound laws of English, he has contributed a very special vocabulary to both English and German. (See the Glossary for a small sample.) Friends are occasionally startled to hear C.-J.-isms on national television or see them in print. Apparently some of his inventions are gradually working their way through the network of former campers, students, and colleagues who are now in strategic positions at the *New York Times*, as well as on faculties from Johannesburg to Klagensfurt, and Oxford to Vancouver and Sydney, and back again.

Ever the gentleman, he may feud with—and infuriate—his peers, but he is kindness and politeness itself to the *polloi*. His Southern hospitality is legendary. Whether at his Berlin apartment or his tropical paradise in Hawaii, he has wined, dined, and put up half the world's linguists, sometimes for months. So his seemingly solitary life has been sociable in the extreme, not counting his plant and quadruped pets. His Berlin office and apartment have been downright 'jungle-oid' on occasion. C.-J. even managed to bring a gardenia to bloom indoors in Berlin! (Thorough, as always, he belongs to the American Horticultural Society and the Palm Society.) Letters to friends often request information about obtaining seeds for difficult-to-find plants.

Ah, yes, the dawg! His flop-eared green-eyed black dog, Li/Lee/Ali, who has been patiently waiting for him in Hawaii, is reportedly "of creole extraction, but with the manners of quality." However, he has a penchant for changing his name. Originally, baptized Ali'i ('Royalty' in Hawaiian) and thus registered, C.-J. got lazy and shortened it to Li (also spelled Lee, for Robert E.). But Li had been watching TV, listening to the news, and reading the *New York Times*, and decided to change his name to Ali X. Possibly under the influence of Freddie Jones, Li gave up the Babdis' religion, changed his name, and insisted that he was from Sierra Leone. C.-J. reports with glee that his dog "pidginizes Hawaiian Pidgin with Brack English." He will be the happiest of all to have C.-J. in Hawaii, permanently to scratch his ears and play him Mozart!

In a more serious vein, we want to emphasize that, despite his hilarious, sometimes Rabelaisian, even shaggy-dog, wit, Charles-James N. Bailey is, above all, a man of integrity and conviction whose life has been devoted to the search for—and the defense of—Truth, whether in his personal life

or in his professional life.⁸ This seriousness is reflected in his sometimes annoying insistence on accuracy in the smallest detail. "Who cares?" is definitely not C.-J.'s view of things. He cares, deeply. And he has been willing to inconvenience himself considerably to follow his vision of the Truth, whether in theology or in linguistics.

All of us who have worked on this volume feel that C.-J. has made an enormous contribution to our lives, not only intellectually, but personally. This volume is a small token of our appreciation, admiration, and affection for "the iconoclast Bailey," as he was once introduced at a meeting. Rather than 'Gomorrhah-lizing' C.-J., we hope that it will send him into many 'rhapsodasms'—"in mirthful numbers!"

CF & JAE⁹

⁸"... some would wish to defend the truth and show up the false as false."

⁹Thanks to Lloyd Anderson, Jake and Barbara Bailey, Helga Brummenbaum, Bill Burks, Eric Hamp, Bill Hanson, Frederick Jones, Karl Maroldt, Tom Perry, and Hedy St-Denis, for suggestions and corrections. Peter Mühlhäusler also got his in.

C.-J. Bailey's Contribution to Linguistics

When surveying the scholarly production of Charles-James Bailey over the last two decades one is struck by three things:

- (1) The enormous number of his publications,
- (2) The wide scope of the topics addressed in them and, most importantly,
- (3) The consistency of his writing over time, stretching from his early programmatic statement in the *Hawaii Working Papers in Linguistics* of January 31, 1971, entitled "Trying to Talk in the New Paradigm", up to the present.

Later work has added to, refined, and illustrated the revolutionary program outlined in "Trying to talk in the new paradigm". Bailey's subsequent publications have seldom deviated from or opposed his earlier ideas. To use Baileyan phraseology, his early work is the basis from which his later work is derived and by which it is implied.

An understanding of his later work thus, ideally, presupposes a knowledge of his earlier work, in particular, his landmark 1973 book, *Variation and Linguistic Theory*, where his early thoughts are most explicitly illustrated. I consider myself lucky to have followed Bailey's writings from the beginning (I first came into contact with them in 1972), to have been teaching with him during the especially productive period of 1976-79, and to have been on his mailing list ever since.

Bailey's bibliography almost speaks for itself. Almost, because what is not in evidence are his contributions to theology and other fields of

knowledge and his frequent letters to newspapers and magazines, many of them dealing with linguistic matters. Equally prolific are his handouts prepared for his students at the Technical University of Berlin. (See p. 667 for an example.)

In regard to their scope, Bailey's linguistic writings range widely, embracing phonetology, dialectology, historical linguistics, syntactic theory, markedness theory, creolistics, philosophy of language, methodology, and, more recently, applied linguistics, particularly language planning and teaching English to speakers of other languages. Having thus stepped outside the straight and narrow confines of grammatical theory, Bailey, like some of his similarly-minded colleagues, has been called a sociolinguist, a label which he himself would reject on the grounds that he has consistently insisted on the separateness of linguistic and social facts and on the precedence which linguistic or structural facts should take over social considerations in variation research. More importantly, Bailey would feel uneasy about being put into a category which is known for attention to methodology rather than theory, for his own work quite undisputedly primarily addresses theoretical questions.

A much more appropriate characterization of Bailey's linguistics is that it is decompartmentalizing, i.e., that it breaks down the barriers the practitioners of the field have erected between subbranches such as historical linguistics, dialectology, stylistics, or sociolinguistics. Bailey's reasons for abolishing such self-imposed compartments derives from two considerations:

- (1) His desire for explanations and predictions
- (2) His introduction of temporality into linguistic thinking

The introduction of temporality is necessitated by the very nature of language as a dynamic phenomenon. Variability and change are not accidental, peripheral, or disruptive properties of human language but the very reason for its usefulness as a tool of human communication. Variability means that a language is capable of satisfying the numerous communicative needs of its speakers, indexical, stylistic, and informative, while change allows human speakers to adapt to new situations. Linguistic creativity consists of more than the rule-governed creativity which lies at the core of most contemporary linguistic theories.

The changing, variable nature of real language structures is what Bailey wants to account for and, more importantly, explain. Past researchers have been aware of the considerable variability of human language but have felt it necessary to design models that force it into simple invariant systems.

This is done, for instance, by removing the main factors that introduce variability, namely, change over time and individual behavior. These two factors have traditionally been either neglected, or pushed to the periphery or even completely out of the area considered by linguistics, labels such as *PAROLE* or *PERFORMANCE* being regarded as justification for the waste basket containing unexplainable or unexplained linguistic phenomena. Bailey challenges such practice on several grounds, noting:

- (1) That variation and systematicity do not have to go together; that they are independent parameters. Instead, he regards the linguist's job as reconciling static universals with the changing variety of real language structure.
- (2) That the static systems brought into being by static theory have no counterpart in the real world and are thus not empirically testable claims about human language.
- (3) That criteria for distinguishing between competence and performance, synchronic and diachronic, and other dichotomies are non-empirical. At best, such dichotomies are initial heuristic devices. It certainly makes no sense to regard them as essential characteristics of human language to be explained by linguistic theory.

Of the two forces shaping variable systems, time and individual changes, Bailey is concerned mainly with the former. Variable patterns are regarded as having been created largely by temporal differences. As a number of papers in this volume address this question, I will limit myself to a basic discussion of this principle. I shall come back to individual deviations below.

Table 1. Observed feature distribution

Speaker							Features
1	+A	+B	+C	-D	+E	+F	
2	-A	+B	-C	-D	+E	+F	
3	-A	+B	-C	-D	-E	-F	
4	-A	-B	-C	-D	-E	-F	
5	+A	+B	+C	+D	+E	+F	
6	+A	+B	-C	-D	+E	+F	
7	-A	+B	-C	-D	+E	-F	
-but not-8	+A	-B	-C	-D	-E	+F	
or 9	-A	-B	+C	+D	-E	+F	

Let us assume that we have identified six linguistic features or grammatical categories which are used variably by members of a 'speech community'. Pluses represent the presence of a certain feature and minuses its absence. There are numerous mathematically possible combinations of pluses and minuses, but in actual fact observable combinations tend to be a very small subset, as illustrated in Table 1.

The seven permitted combinations can then be arranged in such a way that each speaker differs from the next one by just one feature, to yield the arrangement shown in Table 2.

Table 2. Rearranged data

Speaker							
5	+A	+B	+C	+D	+E	+F	Features
1	+A	+B	+C	-D	+E	+F	
6	+A	+B	-C	-D	+E	+F	
etc.							

In its most abstract form, the grid of features will look as shown in Table 3.

Table 3. The polylectal grid

	B	E	F	A	C	D	Features
Speaker							
5	+	+	+	+	+	+	
1	+	+	+	+	+	-	
6	+	+	+	+	-	-	
2	+	+	+	-	-	-	
7	+	+	-	-	-	-	
3	+		-	-	-	-	
4	-	-	-	-	-	-	

This rearrangement clearly demonstrates what implicated patterns can occur. A plus implies only pluses to its left and a minus implies only minuses to its right. The implications are unidirectional. The presence of a plus makes no predictions of what is found to its right.

Bailey's interpretation of this state of affairs would be that:

- (1) The original system was one with minus values only.
- (2) Plus features were added at different stages in the history of the language.

- (3) The pluses were added in strict sequence and the additions were cumulative or retentive rather than replacive.
- (4) Later additions imply earlier ones, but not vice versa.
- (5) The implicational patterns observed thus reflect relative time: what implies is added later than what is implied.

At a very abstract level the form of the implicational or polylectal grid can be seen in Table 4.

Table 4					
Speaker	A	B	C	D	Features
1	+	+	+	+	
2	+	+	+	-	
3	+	+	-	-	
4	+	-	-	-	
5	-	-	-	-	

An important aspect of implicational scales is that they are constant over a number of dimensions: spatial, social, and stylistic. Thus, in Table 4, the presence of feature D will always imply that of features C, B, and A, but not vice versa. Again, B implies A but not vice versa. What differs is the interpretation of this arrangement by different groups of users or contexts of use. The forms are thus multifunctional: feature D could be associated, for instance, with spatial distribution shown in Table 5.

Table 5 represents the wave-like travel of an innovation over space. The center of innovation is location number 1. Innovation B is added after innovation A thus implies innovation B. Innovations travel from 1 to 5 with the result that the largest number of innovations is found right at the center and that all innovations reach outlying locations in a strict order. What goes for space also goes for other dimensions, for instance, speech styles. Location 1 could be a most advanced relaxed style with 2, 3, and 4 being increasingly more formal styles. If we combine these stylistic and spatial dimensions, we might find that the most advanced style at one location corresponds to the middle-of-the-road style at the center of the innovative location.

From this claim two important and inescapable conclusions emerge:

- (a) It is clear why Bailey is not a sociolinguist who correlates linguistic with extralinguistic facts, since the pattern of linguistic variation is not related to a single external parameter.

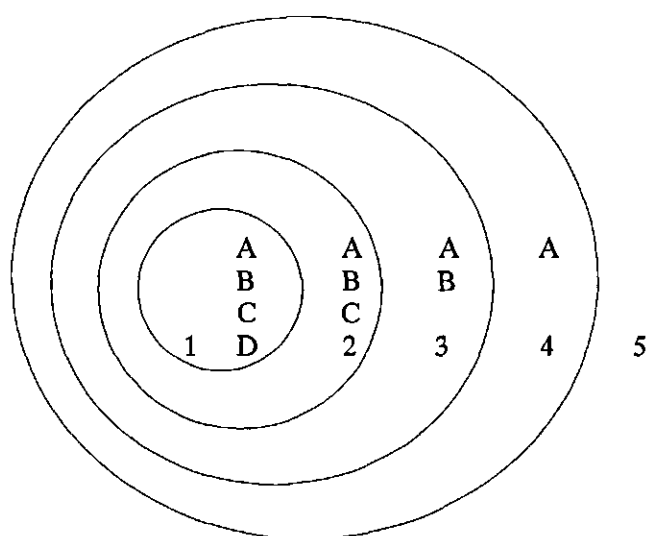
- (b) It is also evident why Bailey is a decompartmentalizing linguist: the same implicational patterns are found in time, geographical space, social space, or stylistic space.

The idealized picture presented thus far relates to an instance with a single center of innovation. How interaction among different centers of innovation complicates the picture will be discussed below.

As they were conceived originally, implicational scales display rather than explain data and, thus, taken by themselves, do not meet Bailey's requirement that linguistics should explain existing variation and predict future patterns. To regard the development of devices for the display of data as the essence of Baileyan linguistics would miss the main important theoretical concerns that appear throughout his writings on variation. For the transition from display to explanation, additional apparatus is needed. This is provided by Bailey in the form of markedness-theoretical conventions, and consideration of linguistic naturalness.

The two concepts of markedness and naturalness are not always kept separate in the writings of variationists, including Bailey. My own preference is that markedness be confined to single linguistic systems and that naturalness relate to universal grammar. In actual fact, the two will coincide and overlap. Nevertheless, such a separation allows one to make important distinctions such as that between targeted language acquisition (ordinary child acquisition) and untargeted language acquisition (such as pidgin/creole development).

Table 5. Innovation over space



Markedness is manifested in linguistic development in the following ways:

- (1) In the case of complexity-acquiring systems (child language acquisition, development of pidgins) more marked categories develop after less marked ones such that the presence of more marked categories implies that of corresponding less marked ones.
- (2) In the history of fully-developed adult languages the opposite tendency is encountered. All things being equal, linguistic change goes in the direction from more to less marked.

In both instances the prediction of future states is possible, an important consideration for people who work in the applied areas of linguistics such as second language acquisition and language planning.

Bailey's contribution to markedness theory is considerable and can only be briefly touched upon here. An important insight is that markedness can relate both to linguistic entities or structures and to the environment in which they appear. Such a view allows linguists to explain seeming anomalies by appealing to the concept of markedness reversal.

The most convenient illustration of the principle of markedness reversal comes from an area unrelated to linguistics such as the social conventions of dress. The unmarked state of affairs in Western societies is to be dressed in public, the marked one to be undressed. However, markedness reversal makes it possible for a dressed person to be marked or stand out at a nudist beach and an undressed person to be unmarked in the same environment. A parallel case in language would be the unmarked imperative without pronoun, *don't cry*, and the marked presence of the pronoun in the imperative environment, *don't you cry*, which conveys the special meaning of sympathy. Note that here we are dealing with constructional iconicity, the marked construction standing for marked meaning. (See Bailey 1984.)

A summary of some of the refinements that Bailey has made to markedness theory (particularly with regard to phonetology) is found in Bailey 1985a.

Of great interest are his ideas that an unmarking in one part of grammar may lead to increased marking in another part and his observations on differential susceptibility to marking in the input and environment of phonological rules.

It should be noted that such refinements are not necessitated by requirements of internal consistency but rather by Bailey's concern for an ex-

planation of data concerning linguistic change. That such explanations can be provided is illustrated by Bailey in numerous articles and, most explicitly, in his course on phonetology at the Technical University of Berlin. Language being a highly complex phenomenon, it should not surprise us that complex explanatory mechanisms are needed to deal with it.

One of Bailey's constant worries has been the proclivity of practitioners in fields such as historical and general linguistics to be perfectly happy with inadequate outdated and unsuitable models. His own prediction regarding any shift from the static to the dynamic paradigm was that, as time went by, "the hostilities which the new paradigm will evoke will be somewhat more muted than before, while the inertia against it will be proportionally greater" (1971:122). Such inertia is deplored in many of Bailey's articles, for instance, when he castigates historical linguists for neglecting their proper job (1985b:58):

Let me state my thesis at the very outset. The job of the historical-comparative linguist is to deal with change and to compare its results. I can almost hear each reader saying to himself or herself: 'Who doubts that? Why did he go out of his way to tell us that?' The answer to this question lies in the fact that numerous writings on historical and comparative linguistics make use of models explicitly designed for the idiolect and explicitly designed to exclude change and comparison—phonemes, morphemes, states, isoglossic dialects, etc.—models that can with much less grace or ease be turned to historical-comparative ends than a diver's suit could be turned into an evening gown.

Similar outspokenness is found in Bailey's criticism of dialectology (1980:234):

Let me note that I do not believe that the present methods are ever going to bring us any nearer the goal of defining or delimiting dialects, or that these methods are ever going to make more contributions to our understanding of the theory of language, than they already have.

He has also extended his criticism of dialectology to more recent sociolinguistic work (1980:236):

The fiction of bundled isoglosses was accepted as an ideal and attempts were made to patch up its known inadequacies with bandages like Karl Haag's concept of a core region. But this approach, summed up in Paul Meyer's pronouncement that

dialects are fictitious abstractions, constructs which admittedly rest on an arbitrary choice of differentiating features, fails to offer scientific inquiry a useful conceptual tool—first of all because of its arbitrariness and non-objectivity and finally because it has to be explained away in order for any progress to take place. But its essential error is to suppose that extra-linguistic factors could or should coincide with the distribution of linguistic factors within or across language systems (which themselves are gradient in structure and in delimitation). Current sociolinguistics often repeats the same error.

One could add that much of the ongoing research on speech markers has also taken over this error, namely, that linguistic signs are biplanar and fixed, a view incapable, in principle, of dealing with dynamic phenomena such as linguistic change and accommodation.

Whereas Bailey has refined and tested his model over the years and while many of his followers, such as some of those represented in this volume, have taken his ideas aboard, inertia still persists in compartmentalized mainstream linguistics. One might wish to argue that this situation is to the detriment of the field, since a time-incorporating model lends itself much more readily to applications than a static one. That his linguistics is indeed a highly practical one with close affinity to applied linguistics was realized by Bailey very early on. However, in recent years applied questions, in particular, that of teaching English to speakers of other languages, have become more prominent in his writings.

I can highlight only two areas where his new emphasis is particularly noticeable, namely language planning and second language teaching.

Language planners have for a long time been hampered by a view that regarded closed systems where everything was determined by everything else as the ideal end point of the planning process. Thus, they were concerned with accidental gaps, asymmetries, irregularities, and a notion of simplicity directly related to economy and communicative efficiency. It has turned out, however, that such a view of language is misguided for two reasons: it ignores the importance of language as a means of adapting to new circumstances, i.e., the importance of having at one's disposal rule-changing creativity, and it ignores the difference between mechanical simplicity and regularity on the one hand, and naturalness and markedness, which characterizes human communication systems, on the other.

A particular contribution of Bailey's to language planning is in the area of developing writing systems where his phonetology would seem to be a much more suitable basis than shallow phonemic systems or unjustifiably

deep transformational phonologies. In particular, his phonetology is ideal for languages that exhibit widespread lectal variation.

In regard to second language teaching, Bailey's insights are of importance in a number of areas. First of all, implicational scaling provides a tool for describing interlanguages such as occur with second language learners. Secondly, criteria of markedness and naturalness rather than rule simplicity or contrastive considerations serve to explain learners' errors. Thirdly, by pointing out to foreign language learners the importance of using unmarked and leveled forms, they can be helped to get closer to near-native performance in their target language.

Over the years students who have gone through the phonetology classes in Berlin have acquired a superior understanding of the functioning of the language they are going to teach to German school children. As their numbers grow, one might hope that the incidence of "footling English" (see the Glossary) in Berlin schools would decrease.

It would seem appropriate to return to a number of issues which were briefly mentioned earlier, namely:

- (1) language contact
- (2) individual deviation
- (3) the independence of linguistic structure

These issues raise questions as to the limitations of the Baileyan approach to language, or better, questions the limits of explanatory power of linguistic theories as well as those about the origin of markedness.

In his programmatic paper of 1971 (pp. 124-25) Bailey stated that creole situations are much more common than language development in isolation. In his terminology creolization means the mixing of linguistic systems. Mixing is one of the reasons why, on the one hand, changes over time of full languages do not always proceed from more marked to less marked and, on the other hand, why complexity-changing development does not always go from less to more marked. Bailey's original assumption that mixing increases markedness has been refined in his own later writings and in the writings of some of his followers including my own (Mühlhäusler 1985). By emphasizing the centrality of mixing, Bailey altered a situation where language contact and mixing was increasingly being pushed to the periphery of linguistics. His insistence at the Technical University of Berlin that creolistics should occupy a central position in the linguistics syllabus bears witness to this thinking.

Mixing of separate systems is not the only area of language contact Bailey has addressed. His work on dialectology and historical linguistics

makes frequent reference to intralinguistic mixing such as dialect contact or style shifts.

His position on the independence of grammatical structures from pragmatic and social parameters, at least in my interpretation, is one where the unmarked case appears to be independence and the marked one pragmatic influence on structure. In his introductory lectures on linguistics at the Technical University of Berlin, Bailey used to distinguish a grammatical core consisting of phonetology and semantax from a pragmatic outer area. Just as dependence between phonetology and semantax is relatively rare, so is dependence between grammar and pragmatics. However, we have already noted that marked pragmatic contexts or marked meanings tend to promote marked syntactic structures and to this needs to be added that speakers of many languages also engage in activities such as hypercorrection, standardization, and the creation of esoteric styles for taboo or other reasons. In as much as such changes take place in time, they can be arranged on implicational scales. However, it should also be borne in mind that deliberate changes can ignore or replace existing implicational scales and that they typically do not take account of markedness hierarchies. Thus, prestige borrowing from the superstrate in pidgin development can upset established developmental tendencies as can an unsuitable teaching syllabus in the case of second language acquisition.

In 1971 Bailey suggested that performance is in the individual, which, to me, implies that the processes least likely to lend themselves to prediction are individual activities, particularly deliberate individual changes. (For an example of his own contributions to filling in lexical gaps in English and German, see the Glossary.) The extent to which such processes shape language, particularly small languages with a closed network of speakers, remains to be established. Bailey's own concern has been with processes where naturalness plays a major role and he has suggested on a number of occasions that the other type of process should be explored by people like myself. I still remember his remarks on the occasion of a lecture at Oxford where he referred to me as the "King of the Abnatural." Recent developments in the areas of chaos and catastrophe theory in other branches of knowledge suggest that there is a vast hidden empire for such a king to rule over.

Closely related to the question of individual preferences is that of the pragmatic influence on grammar. Bailey's implicational scales are neutral with regard to whether such implications are local (e.g., different environments of a phonetological process) or involve interlevel dependencies (e.g., semantactic preconditions to phonetological rules). I am not sure to what extent they could incorporate pragmatic prerequisites to grammatical

analysis and whether his relative lack of concern for this question can be justified in the long run. In as much as variation is functional and sensitive to pragmatic considerations, an answer to this problem needs to be found. Such an answer could change the status of variation theory from one which explains grammatical changes to one that can explain the overall process of human communication.

This brief survey of some of C.-J. Bailey's contributions to linguistics has been structured in such a way as to help more linguists talk in the new paradigm. The basis for my wanting to bring this about is both a personal preference for a Baileyan approach to language as well as a number of more substantive reasons. Many linguists, at one point or other in their career, will have shared these concerns. They include:

- (1) Linguists have for a long time regarded the cultural construct of invariable grammar as the essential natural core of language. We have reasons to reject such a view as mistaken and unlikely to lead to significant insights.
- (2) Scientific prediction, it is widely acknowledged, is contingent on investigators coming to grips with change, fluctuations, instability, and 'messy' data. It is unlikely that linguistics will be able to escape from this obligation.
- (3) It is not likely that linguistics can get away indefinitely with the claim that it is totally value-free and can be carried out as a self-contained intellectual exercise. Rather there is an urgent need for the practitioners in this field to address social and moral issues and pay attention to the needs of the communities they work in. One aspect that is particularly stated in Bailey's work on new modifications is that linguists should be making qualitative judgments.
- (4) Related to this is the growing demand for applicable linguistics from applied areas such as speech therapy, language planning, language teaching, and speech recognition research. All these disciplines require an understanding of variable data and a Baileyan approach may help bring solutions to their problems.
- (5) The concepts put forward by Bailey would seem to provide a viable alternative to more mechanistic approaches to language, i.e., approaches that have operated with machine or conduit metaphors in explaining human communication.

Bailey would be the last person to claim that his system is capable of solving all the problems just mentioned. However, I believe he would insist that his approach has provided a badly needed re-orientation and that it could lead to significant advances if seriously pursued. He has also made the point on a number of occasions, for instance, with regard to dialectology, that his own approach is complementary to other approaches and that work done by others using different frameworks can be integrated within it. I myself have suggested that a combination of Bailey's developmental grammar and a Hallidayean systemic approach to language would result in a particularly powerful explanatory model as it would be capable of coping with both syntagmatic and paradigmatic dimensions of variation.

Despite changes in linguistics over the two decades since Bailey's first programmatic statements we still have a long way to go. C.-J. Bailey will continue to provide leadership and inspire linguists who address problems of variation, change, and development. While the number of people concerned with these topics has grown, much inertia remains, and is likely to remain, for a long time to come. We, the editors of this volume, hope that we have helped to reduce this inertia by making available to a wider audience Bailey's views on language as well as demonstrating their applicability to problems in many areas of linguistic description and applied linguistics.

I will not add much to the numerous proofs of the fertility of Bailey's ideas, but it would seem desirable to make at least a few brief statements about the contributions to this volume. One of the main problems for the editors has been to justify headings and compartments in an exercise which is decompartmentalizing. Most of the papers, in addition to addressing many areas of language such as the lexicon or phonology, also include important statements about development, contact and creolization. The editors have adopted an organization based on the more conventional areas of linguistics in the hope that this would enable readers to appreciate how a Baileyan perspective can illuminate all areas of language.

In the section on Theoretical Orientation we are confronted with two issues that have dominated Bailey's work, 'the status of linguistic concepts versus dialect, idiolect, phoneme, etc.' and the nature of linguistic variation. Harris, like Bailey, demonstrates the dangers of taking existing concepts as given and to engage, as Francis Bacon (1939:6) put it in his Proemium to *The Great Instauration* (used as an epigram in Bailey's *On the Yin and Yang Nature of Language*), "to engage in a perpetual struggle and pursuit in causes which have no exit." Like Bailey, Harris also addresses the problem of the "burden of history" and the dangers of establishing closed shops for the discussion of linguistic knowledge. Maxwell addresses

Bailey's solution to some central problems of linguistics, i.e., the provision of description and explanation for patterned variations in language. His general discussion of this area provides a useful reference point for the remainder of the volume.

Phonetology has always been Bailey's central concern; this is reflected in the large number of contributions in this area. The reasons for grouping together phonetics and phonology under one heading—as well as his views on the interface between phonetics and phonology—have been stated in a number of places, though perhaps nowhere with greater clarity than in Bailey 1989, which regrettably was not yet available to the contributors to this volume. That the interface between phonetics and phonology is very complex, but at the same time essential for the study of language development and variation, is demonstrated by the example of "sonority" by Yaeger-Dror. While Yaeger-Dror's explanations make appeal to natural motivations underlying development, Malkiel supplies an impressive body of evidence for the effects of cultural and semantic factors on phonetological change. It is data of this kind that can provide insights into the still insufficiently understood interlevel dependencies in implicational grammar.

Hopper's paper is a reminder that, while variation studies have often been associated with a relatively shallow time depth, there are grounds for not using them for purposes of reconstructing remote stages of human language development. His analysis of Germanic gemination clearly illustrates the applicability of the Baileyan approach to comparative-historical linguistics. This article, and the following one by Perry on 'syllable contact', serves as a reminder of Bailey's extraordinarily wide-ranging background. Bailey makes use of insights from many peoples and cultures, organizing facts and fashions: In Perry's words, he "knew there were syllables even when everyone else had forgotten."

Bailey's Berlin colleague, Karl Maroldt, has demonstrated in various publications how variables can be used to explain aspects of the history of English. In this volume, he addresses some of the more problematic aspects of the Great English Vowel Shift. Change in English is also the topic of Feagin's paper. Feagin, like others before her, argues for a symbiosis, if not integration, of Bailey's developmental/lectological model and a quantitative/glottometric one.

The importance of Irish English for both local language centered studies and for understanding the development of pidgins and creoles as far apart as the Caribbean and Australia is becoming more widely recognized. Ó Baoill, in his analysis of Irish English, contributes an example of ab-natural phonological development resulting from language contact. He supplements Bailey's ideas concerning the consequences of linguistic en-

counters with considerations of accommodation and adjustment. Like Ó Baoill's paper and, indeed, most papers in this volume, Romaine's study on the *p/f* distinction in Tok Pisin is based on a large corpus of data. Her analysis, demonstrating rapid change over short stretches of time and space, illustrates why C.-J. Bailey has been so concerned that creolistics should be considered part of the core of theoretical linguistics. It also suggests the usefulness of a wave model of linguistic diffusion, as does the paper by Edmondson on Kam tone splits. Edmondson's paper, again, underlines the importance of integrating phonetic and phonological factors in linguistic analysis.

Variation studies have tended to cluster in the phonetological area and attempts to carry them to 'higher levels' of analysis have often run into difficulties. These have tended to be of a practical, rather than a principled nature, as is illustrated in Carden's replication of Legum's *while*-clause studies. Given Bailey's insistence that linguists should remove obstacles that "prevent linguistics from becoming a science," Carden's suggestions as to how to overcome replication problems in experimental linguistics is most welcome.

Markedness reversal has featured strongly in Bailey's more recent writings and the applicability of this concept to explaining linguistic data is shown in a number of papers in this section, beginning with McCawley's contribution on *in*, *into*, and *enter*, followed by Bolinger's study of the English reciprocal.

Explaining variations in morphology and syntax, on the one hand, involves appeal to the notions of markedness and markedness reversal. On the other hand, pragmatic considerations are seen to govern regularities and subregularities in this area. Thompson's paper, "Information Flow and Dative Shift in English Discourse," nicely exemplifies how grammatical rules are shaped by extra-grammatical patterns, as does Davison's account of question strategies in Hindi-Urdu.

Dependencies of an implicational kind within a single component of grammar are discussed for early NP_s in English by Zwicky and in Givón's paper on Ute reflexives, complementation, and clause integration. These two papers underline the need to treat variation across styles and registers as variations within a single grammar.

Mixed languages, pidgins, and creoles function prominently in this section as they are particularly suited to sorting out the different effects of natural and abnatural language development. Baugh reexamines the suffix */-s/* in Black English, a feature which is particularly attractive to Baileyan linguists because it has been a variable feature throughout the development of the language and because it illustrates the interdependencies

between different components of grammar. Jones' paper on the plural *-s* in Krio describes processes that may well have occurred in the history of American Black English Vernacular. That the development of morpho-syntax can be predicted by appealing to language-independent patterns for development from less to more complex systems is illustrated for pronoun development in a number of pidgin languages by Mühlhäusler. The question of identification and classification of mixed languages is taken up by Leitner in his comparison of Australian and Indian English and, again, by Mayerthaler and Mayerthaler in their study of Bavarian syntax. Their suggestion that "Every language has at least two parents" is a particularly important one in Baileyan linguistics. The two Mayerthalers demonstrate in convincing detail how the neglect of these principles has led philologists astray in their attempt to account for the development of Bavarian. As a native speaker of Alemannic, I certainly welcome their suggestion that Bavarian can be classified as a creolized Alemannic.

The final paper in this section is Peng's study of laterality effects in agrammatism. It introduces an important consideration for those who are in the business of considering intercomponent dependencies, i.e., the fact that the term GRAMMAR, like the previously mentioned DIALECT, is culture- and language-specific.

In the short section on Lexical and Historical matters we find two articles dealing with etymological questions. Hamp shows how Bailey's insistence on the centrality of variation and dynamism can help etymologists deal with complex problems such as the disturbingly varied shapes of English *bottom*, a theme also shared in Polomé's discussion of the etymology of divine names in the Germanic world. Considerations of variation in historical studies is related to the question of genetic affiliation in Comrie's paper on Papuan Haruai. Comrie also emphasizes the usefulness of Bailey's acceptance of mixed language to the study of this language.

Language acquisition, learning, and contact all feature prominently in Bailey's developmental linguistics. Horvath's paper provides an overall survey of the role of variation studies in acquisition, while Fidelholtz and Montes, Pishwa, and Pfaff present detailed case studies. Pfaff's analysis of case marking in German demonstrates the explanatory power of the concept of connatural and abnatural change. The importance of markedness and markedness reversal for explaining language change is demonstrated in Fidelholtz and Montes' report on the acquisition of Spanish phonology and Pishwa's on the learning of German morphology. Fidelholtz and Montes present the only study in this collection which concentrates on variation in the individual, one of Bailey's great interests. De Gelder's

paper links up with themes dealt with by several of the contributors to this volume, for instance, her remarks on the influences of the alphabetic tradition on language reaffirm those of Harris at the beginning of this volume and Peng's study on agrammatism. Bailey's dismissive views on the phoneme are given further support by the study, as are his views on the methodological precedence of developmental over static studies. Ureland's paper on multilingualism, diglossia, and research methods confirms the Mayerthalers' and Bailey's position that all languages have at least two parents. Ureland's is a work-in-progress report on the language situation in the Alps and Ireland, whose findings promise to provide challenging data for variation linguists.

The last four articles, grouped together under the heading of 'Varia' provide insights into areas that Bailey's linguists may yet come to deal with—conscious human intervention in language change, discourse strategies, semiotics, and the many issues involved in language teaching. Don Laycock, who prematurely passed away in December, 1988, gives a particularly original interpretation of Pitcairnese, suggesting that instead of classifying it as a creole it is more appropriately seen as a cant, comparable to forms of speech such as Shelta. Laycock emphasizes the importance of abnatural deliberate human interference in the process of language development. Shepherd's paper, in contrast, is concerned with a genuine creole, Antigua Creole. Like other contributors to this volume, she emphasizes the difference in linguistic behavior between oral and literate cultures and the influence of discourse strategies on structures. Roland Posner, for many years a colleague of Bailey's at the Technical University of Berlin, provides a brief resumé of sign processes. From his semiotic perspective, he characterizes a number of processes such as sign manipulation, that are central to understanding Bailey's linguistics.

The final paper in this volume is Nickel's detailed account of teaching English in Japan in which Nickel draws attention to Bailey's contribution to language teaching. An interesting highlight of this article are Nickel's comments on Tsunoda's claims that the "Japanese language is connected with a unique brain structure", a claim that should remind us of our own ethnocentric views on language (e.g., scriptism, binarity, obsession with states) which Bailey, throughout his career, has urged language specialists to overcome, whether as linguistic researchers, language teachers, or workers in other areas.

The articles surveyed here are just an indication of the amount of intellectual energy that has been generated by C.-J. Bailey's work. I find it hard to improve on the last paragraph in Bailey 1982:82:

The vision of language and linguistics offered here is radically different from all those that have been offered—and that have failed—in this century. It is based on a realistic look at human language and a refusal to be blinded by the biases of the past in doing so. It is a view that will probably replace the older paradigm and the extremist philosophies on which its *yroëths* rest. But although we developmentalists may turn out to be proposing the wrong remedies for the present near impasse in linguistic analysis, we refuse to be declared wrong by (static) definition or on the basis of arbitrary and untenable premises.

Peter Mühlhäusler
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Charles-James Nice Bailey

Theory

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¹This is not a complete listing of everything Charles-James N. Bailey has written. His nonlinguistic writings are omitted, as well as papers that have never been submitted to a publisher—other than a number of working papers which have been frequently cited; editorials as well as short working papers and letters to editors are omitted. Some items were not included because they have been superseded by later writings.

²Starred items will appear in this collection, some in a revised version.

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Variation in Indo-European 'bottom'

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The forms lying behind English *bottom* are disturbingly varied. In fact, the greatest variety to be found documented in all of Germanic is registered in Middle English: *bot(t)em*, *botme*, *boden*, and *bothem*. As earlier forms of the first three of these shapes we find Old English *botm* and *bodan*. Let us now choose representatives to reflect the comparable variation to be found in West Germanic: Old Frisian shows *boden*, while Dutch has *bodem*, Middle Low German *bōdem(e)* and *boddem(e)*, Old Saxon the dative singular *bothme*, and Old High German *bodam*, etc., yielding modern German *Boden*. To these we may add Old Norse, Norwegian, and Old Danish *botn*.

First let us recover the forms necessary to account for the observed variety: Middle English, Old High German, Old Saxon, and probably Middle Low German and Dutch require **bopm*: Old English clearly presupposes **botm*, while Old English, Old Frisian, and German (if *Bühne* is to be included here, as some have argued) call for **bodn*. On this basis now, Old Norse *botn* can be explained as a conflation of the last two, i.e., **botm* X **bodn*.

Of this bewildering array the clearest Germanic etymon is certainly **bodn*. Here we must have an exact cognate of Sanskrit *budhná-*, i.e., **bhudhnó-*. The identity of the base is confirmed by Greek *πυθμήν*. Other forms must be related, but the nature of the nasal is ambiguous: Latin

fundus,¹ Old Irish *bond* (perhaps properly *bonn*, because of its relatively late attestation)² 'sole of the foot'. To these I add Pre-Hellenic $\pi\acute{\upsilon}\nu\delta\alpha\acute{\xi}$ 'bottom of a receptacle' (accepting, e.g., the attribution in Georgiev 1981: 102), with the regular pseudo-Grassmann's Law $*bhu(n)dh-$ > $*bu(n)dh-$, and then the pseudo-Grimm's Law $*bu(n)dh-$ > $*pu(n)d-$; cf. also $\Pi\acute{\upsilon}\delta\nu\alpha$.

We may now attempt to explain $*bopm$. In the past the claims of explanation for all of these forms have centered upon the hope of transmuting the nasals one into the other and of converting the obstruents by an ill-motivated dissimilation or by manipulating the phonetics of voicing. All such attempts are poorly founded. They all suffer from insufficient specification of phonetic context and from the weak claim of affecting some forms in some dialects while leaving other instances untouched. Moreover, a suffix $-m(e)n(o)-$ is unlikely as a derivation of such a zero-grade form, especially when we have unclear accounting of its would-be semantics. Finally, a form $*bop-m$ < $*bhut-m-$ would violate the dominant structure constraints on the permitted obstruents in an Indo-European root. I propose, therefore, that we must strike out afresh in our search for a solution.

It seems significant that the Germanic $*-d-$ is limited to the forms in $-n-$. If we take $*bodn$ < $*bhudh-nó-$ as a participle (at least in origin), we see immediately that two analyses, or reconstructions, are possible: $*bhudh-n-$ and $*bodn$ < $*budna-$ < $*budná-$ < $*bupná-$ as if $*bhut-nó-$. If speakers, starting with an inherited $*bhudh-nó-$, have interpreted the resulting $*budná-$ as $*bupná-$, i.e., as a Vernerized product, they would have generated for themselves a new base $*bup-$ which was then available for fresh derivations. One such result would have led easily to $*búpma$, and this fresh etymon would have yielded almost immediately $*bupma-$ > $*bopma-$ > $*bopm$. Thus, $*bodna-$ and $*bopma-$ appeared in a role that had the air of being a simple grammatical relation displaying a well-known consonantal alternation.

We are left now with $*botm$ to explain, whose final element has fruitfully engaged C.-J. Bailey's vigilant attention in the context of Middle and Modern English syllabification versus schwa-insertion of final postconsonantal nasals (Bailey 1989:44). First, there seems to be no plausible phonetic reason why a suffixed $*-ma-$ should either deaspirate the $*dh$ of

¹Pokorny IEW 174 has $*bhundhos$, but there is no Indo-European rule to infix a nasal in a noun. As with *unda* < $*ud-n-a$ 'water (collective)' (with regular sound change of whatever detailed phonetic character) we must have $*bhud(h)no-$. A metathesis is a nonsolution.

²Early Irish *bonn* cannot be proximate $*b(h)ud(h)no-$ since $*-dn-$ gives Celtic $*-n-$. Therefore, the sole comparandum seems to be Avestan *būnō* (Armenian *bun*).

a **bhudhma-* or devoice the **d* of a Germanic **budma-*. On the other hand, the existence of an already formed **butma-* would have provided a partial model for the formation of **búþma-* beside **budná-*, as we have just hypothesized.

It seems, then, that we must begin with two forms for Germanic: **budná-*, and **butma-*. Let us now recall the two problematic nouns, Avestan *būnō* and Irish *bonn*; *πύνδαξ* has its background too much shrouded in prehistory to be worth any speculation here. The only plausible and responsible solution to be offered for the Iranian and Celtic instances seems to me to be an assumption of phonetic anticipation of the nasal. This leads us to **bhund(h)no-*; it could have taken place separately in the dialects of Indo-European. Now what would be the context for such a development?

Let us notice, also, that there is disagreement in the apparent suffix of Greek *πυθ-μήν* and Germanic **but-ma-*. One gets the impression that an old anomalous form lies underneath these, a formation that later and separately was incorporated into the canonical paradigm of suffixes in the dialects. The common portion in these forms is **bhud(h)-m*. This has every appearance of being a vestigial accusative singular of a root noun, if we could motivate its fossilization with the case ending incorporated and later refashioned into an acceptable suffix. One stray fact immediately improves the plausibility of this notion: if **bhudh-* was an old root noun we may now hope to understand better the consonantism of **but-ma-* < apparent **bhud-mo-*. Since the nominative singular of **bhudh-* would have been **bhuts*, with neutralization, a new, and canonically acceptable, stem **bhud-* could have been created; such a stem form would have been functionally welcome as eliminating the homonymy with the verbal noun **bhudh-* from the base 'be conscious', represented in Germanic by Old English *bēodan*, etc.

Along these lines we may also speculate that in the accusative singular **bhudhm* the anticipatory nasalization first took place that led to **bhundh-m*. This could then have been carried over into the synonym **bhundh-nó-* > **b(h)unno-* > Avestan *būnō* Irish *bonn*. This last portion of the argument is admittedly speculative, but at least it is principled.

C.-J. Bailey has done us a great service by insisting on the importance and centrality of variation and dynamism in systems. This family of forms exhibits a history of variation throughout—and notably in Germanic and English. In reconstruction it is hard to distinguish synonymy from contextual variant; but we must strive to chronologize.

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